

1. Sample 1 of water froze at 0°C .
2. Sample 2 of water froze at 0°C .
3. Sample 3 of water froze at 0°C .
-
- N. Sample N of water froze at 0°C .
- N+1. If all past samples of water froze at 0°C , then
this sample of water will freeze at 0°C .
-
- C. This sample of water will freeze at 0°C . (1-N+1)

Is this argument valid?

We already have an explanation of why we should believe premises 1-N.

What about premise $N+1$?

In our first reading, Hume addresses the question of whether we should believe premises like this by drawing a distinction between two different kinds of claims:

Premise N+1 appears to be like the claim that the sun will rise tomorrow:
it is a matter of fact rather than a matter of the relations of ideas, and so
cannot be known "by the mere operation of thought."

$N+1$. If all past samples of water froze at 0°C , then this sample of water will freeze at 0°C .

The Uniformity of Nature

The future will be like the past.

It seems as though, if we should believe in the Uniformity of Nature, we should believe $N+1$. So the basic question is whether we should believe in the Uniformity of Nature.

Is the negation of this claim a contradiction?

It seems not. So it seems that, if we should believe it, we must believe it
on the basis of experience.

After all, yesterday the future was like the past. And the same for the day before that. And this suggests an argument for the Uniformity of Nature.

1. Yesterday, the future was like the past.
2. The day before yesterday, the future was like the past.
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.....

N. N days ago, the future was like the past.

C. Today, the future will be like the past. (1-N)

It is hard to see how we could make the argument valid without adding a premise which was just a restatement of the very claim — the Uniformity of Nature — which we were trying to prove.

All massive objects
attract one another.

Every 24 hours, the earth
rotates on its axis.

It is very plausible that these are all claims which we should believe. But we have at present no explanation of this fact. After all, the only arguments we can give for these claims will be arguments like our argument that the sun will come up tomorrow. And these arguments are invalid, and hence not good arguments. This seems to show that

Foundationalism, as we have formulated it, is false.

Halley's comet will next be visible
from earth in 2061.

It also raises an important question. We think that at least some scientific theories are theories we should believe, and that other generalizations are not. Consider, for example,

People born under the sign of Taurus
are more likely to be stubborn than
people born under other signs.

This is a prediction of the theory of astrology. One shouldn't believe this prediction because one shouldn't believe the theory. But why not?

It is tempting to say something like: there's no good argument for astrology; there's no reason to think that it is true.

That leads to our central question: what does it mean for a theory to be **well-supported** by the evidence?

The examples we have already discussed give us a plausible answer to this question. Scientific theories typically involve certain generalizations. In the simplest case, they will be claims of the form

All F 's are G .

These are not claims which our senses can tell us to be true. But our senses can tell us that claims like this are true:

This particular
thing is an F ,
and it is G .

Let's call claims which are related in this way to generalizations **instances** of the
generalization.

Then we might say that a generalization is well-supported by the evidence just in case the following two conditions are satisfied:

Our senses tell us
that many instances
of the generalization
are true.

Our senses don't tell us that any instances of the generalization are false.

Induction $\rightarrow$ Belief

If you know many true instances of a generalization P , and don't know of any false instances of P , you should believe P .

I want to now look at two problems for Induction $\rightarrow$ Belief.

The first is called the paradox of the ravens. Consider the following

generalization:

Let's look at second problem for Foundationalism.

Foundationalism says that you should discard any belief which is neither (i) certain nor (ii) based on sense experience or (iii) a conclusion of a good argument.

No Foundations → No Belief

If you can't be certain that P and your senses don't tell you that P and you can't give a good argument for P, you should not believe P.

Suppose that someone believes that Foundationalism is true. It appears that they should reason as follows: Foundationalism is true; so, I should continue to believe Foundationalism only if it is (i) certain or (ii) based on sense experience or (iii) a conclusion of a good argument; but in fact Foundationalism satisfies none of (i)–(iii); so, I should discard my belief in Foundationalism.

Foundationalism thus appears to be unstable, in the sense that it recommends that it itself not be believed. It is thus a bit like this sentence:

No one should believe me.

If this sentence is true, no one should believe it. If it is untrue, of course, no one should believe it. So, no one should believe it.

Conservatism

If you already believe P , and know of no good argument against P , you should keep believing P .

If you agree with the idea that you should discard beliefs when your reason for having the belief is undercut, that suggests that a more plausible conservative thesis would be one restricted to basic beliefs — beliefs that you do not hold on the basis of other beliefs. After all, basic beliefs cannot be undercut in this way.

We might state a more restricted principle as follows:

Restricted Conservatism

If P is a basic belief you already have, and know of no good argument against P , you should keep believing P .

This might still explain why we should believe, e.g., that the future will be like the past, as this is plausibly a basic belief.

A principle of this kind might also seem to be good news for someone who believes in God, but does not believe themselves to be in possession of a good argument for that belief.

However, this also might make things seem a little too easy for the believer in God — I'll return to this in a minute.



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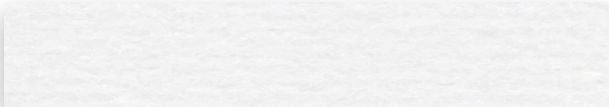
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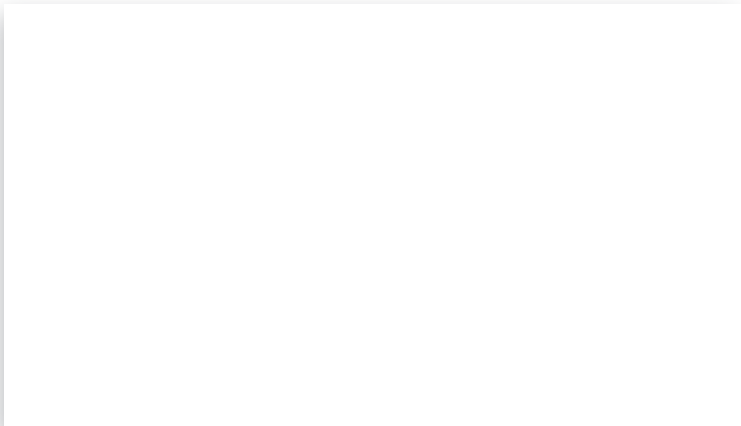
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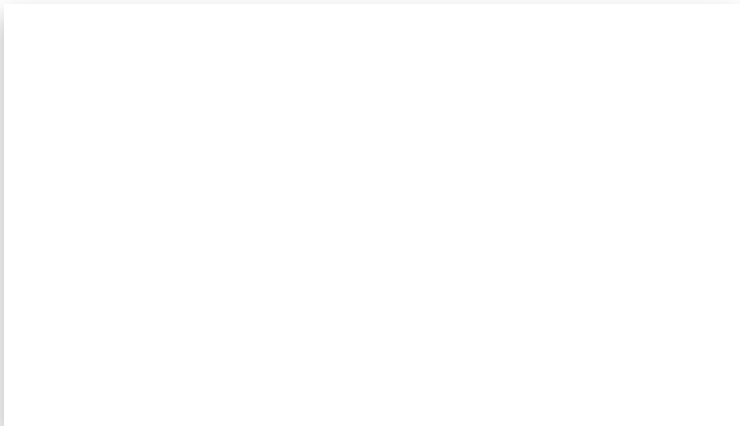


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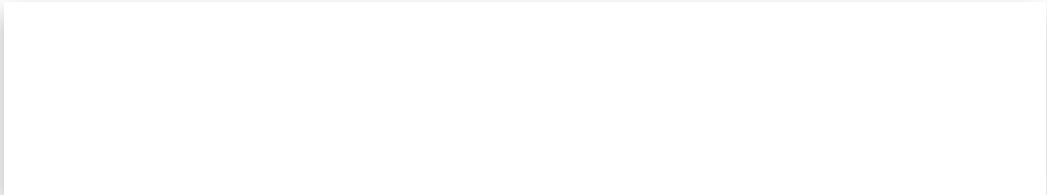
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coronavirus

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This might seem like good news for someone who wants to believe in

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God without arguments. But it leaves us with out a real answer to the

Let's return to the idea of a basic belief you should have. If you think

that we should believe that other people are conscious, then it seems

be (for all we have said) a basic belief you should have.

like we need to think that there are some basic beliefs you should have

evidence. After all, our belief that other people are conscious seems to

of which we can not be certain and for which we have no sensory

It isn't that you can be certain that they are true, or that have seen

Here's one we might try out. Certain claims just seem true to you.

evidence that they are true. They just seem true.

in which their religious belief is reasonable, while Pastafarianism is not.

Surely the religious believer should want to say that there is no sense

But they seem to be completely on par. We are conceding (for now)

that we have no good arguments for either; but we have no good

arguments against the Pastafarian. So what's the difference?

conscious, and we have no argument against that claim, is good reason

for us to believe it. That suggests the following positive rule of belief:

Maybe just the fact that it seems true to just that other people are



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